BILINGUALISM

(ENG512)

Notes based on
MCQs and Descriptive terms
Lesson 23 to 50

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Q: Language practices can also be turned into something about which people, communities, and states have opinions and feelings that is, language practices or _____.

translanguaging	dialect	Languaging	sociology	c

Q: Languaging practices are _____ into languages.

focused	codified	modified	taken	b

Q: Urdu has become an important identity marker for _____after independence.

Indo Pak	Sub continent	Pakistanis	Pak & Bangladesh	c

Q: Some languages have acquired a sanctity dimension for example__ _____for Muslims.

Arabic	Persian	Urdu	English	a

Q: Languages are not_____ codes by themselves.

Determined	fixed	error	Beneficial	b

Q: There is no _____fixed structure to language.

natural	worthy	well	terminated	a

Q: Michel Foucault, discourse conceives language as a form of _____ practices that naturally occurs in connected speech and written text with those who participate in the event.

societal	Commercial	regional	social	d

Q:_____goes beyond discourse to say that there is only languaging.

Edward Sapir	Pennycook	Paul Grice	Roman Jakobson	b

Q: Dialects, pidgins, creoles, and _____are instances of languaging.

Non academic	academic	diglossic	classic	b

Q: For linguists, the term _____is a neutral term used for variants of a specific language.

language	Creole	dialect	pidgin	c

Q: Romaine defines dialect as a _____variety of a language.

Superior	dominate	Higher	subordinate	d

Q: Regional dialects, associated with a_____.

place	country	planet	Society	a

Q: Social dialects, associated with_____.

Social class	Domestic	Elite class	People	a

Q: Historical dialects referring to _____of present language varieties.

Persons	ancestors	Politicians	Linguistics	b

Q: There are also ethnic dialects spoken by ___groups.

eethnolinguistics	social	Class	Labor	a

Q: People often reserve the term _____for languages or ways of using language.

Language	dialect	Code switching	translanguage	b

Q: A_____ is a dialect with an army and a navy.

language	Creole	pidgin	Code	a

Q: Language is most often not linguistic but_____ and having to do with the power of its speakers.

domestic	social	economic	technological	b

Q: Many lay people also assume that _____are varieties of a language that are mutually intelligible.

Dialect	codes	Linguistics	Intelligence	a

Q: Hindi and Urdu, though mutually intelligible are considered_____ languages.

one	two	four	six	b

Q: It is better to use the term _____of language practices when speaking of different ways in which people use language.

consistencies	numbers	complex	varieties	d

Q: _____are defined by linguists as languages that come into being in contact situations, and are used by speakers with different language backgrounds.

creole	languages	pidgins	translanguaging	c

Q: Pidgins are always learned as_____ languages.

first	second	third	Fourth	b

Q: When pidgins become standardized, and adopted as the language of the home by a majority of the population, they are known as_____.

Social groups	languages	dialects	creoles	d

Q: Creoles are said to be lexically and structurally_____

easy	Mild	complex	light	c

Q: Michel De Graff has argued against what he calls Creole _____.

Easy to speak	exceptionalism	difficult	standardization	b

Q: _____argues, there is no way to distinguish one from the other.

Noam chomskey	Steven pinker	Eve clark	DeGraff	d

Q: The languaging of creole speakers takes different features from their entire linguistic_____.

capability	repertoire	inefficiency	Will power	b

Q: Languaging has more features of the creole itself, leading linguists to refer to this variety as a _____.

basilect	Dialect	language	ineptitude	a

Q: Standardization is not an_____ characteristic of language.

Beneficial	inherent	capability	inefficiency	b

Q: _____occurs by fixing and regulating such features as the spelling and the grammar of a language in dictionaries and grammar books which are then used for prescriptive teaching of the language.

Errors	Standardization	Mistakes	Difference	b

Q: The term standard language is often used in opposition to standard is _____.

vernacular	jargon	slang	Literary	a

Q:Coulmas defines standard as a _____variety of language.

low	standard	prestigious	good	c

Q: The standard norm is decided and codified by a _____group, disseminated through the institutions of the state such as education and then usage is constantly policed and users dissuaded from divergent practices, both formally and informally.

class	social	economic	central	d

Q: _____ play a lot of attention to the teaching of language itself.

Society	school	Language	linguistics	b

Q: _____is central in school because it is also the means through which teaching and learning occurs.

class	books	language	pen	c

Q:Standardization and literacy are intrinsically_____.

linked	Differ	Exists	standard	a

Q: The acquisition of literacy presupposes the existence of a codified written standard, and Standardization depends on the existence of a _____form of language.

Learned	Taken	Exclusive	written	d

Q: Literacy relies on the_____, the standard language itself is taught explicitly in school, and it certainly needs to be taught.

Local	standard	Certain	Ensure	b

Q: The exclusive use of a standard variety for school has important implications for _____education.

Multilingual	Monolingual	bilingual	Translanguaging	c

Q: The _____language practices of the home often have little to do with the standard minority language taught in school.

Creole	minoritized	pidgin	French	b

Q: There is a difference between the way in which language is used in academic tasks and in _____and intimacy.

Discussion	dialogue	Monologue	conversation	d

Q: The surface fluency so evident in _____language is most often supported by cues that have little to do with language itself.

Social	School	Early	conversational	d

Q: In personal dialogue, we often ask the other person to repeat, to clarify, and to provide an_____.

Answer	example	Suggestion	Idea	b

Q: Language practices that are supported by meaningful interpersonal and situational cues, known _____language.

Multi	National	contextualized	Regional	c

Q: BICS stands for _____.

	Basic interpersonal communication			b

Q: To complete school tasks, and especially assessment tasks, another different set of language _____is needed.

Skills	Tasks	Situations	Set	a

Q: CALP stands for _____.

		Cognitive Academic Language proficiency		c

Q: Cummins (2000) posits that academic language, both _____and _____is associated with higher-order thinking.

Listening and speaking	Oralandwritten	Understanding and conveying	Art and gallery	b

Q: Cummins argues that _____is not superior to BICS.

ALP	CAT	ELT	CALP	d

Q: Contextual support can also be _____having to do with the experiences, interests, and motivations that interlocutors have.

Internal	external	Enough	superior	b

Q: _____groups impose their language on the less powerful.

Social	powerful	Class	Economics	b

Q: Prejudice against users of _____varieties of a language is as old as the history of language itself.

Nonstandard	Standard	Language	Linguistic	a

Q: AAVE stands for_____.

American African Veriable English	Anglo American Vernacular English	African American Vernacular English	African Anglo Vernacular English	c

Q: The racism that is associated with language is what ToveSkutnabb-Kangas has termed _____.

linguicism	Dialect	Jorgen	Pidgin	a

Q: Penny cook has also shown how language use in education may create _____people, able to cooperate in their own exploitation.

good	docile	Civilized	Non civilized	b

Q: Written _____English in U.S. school assessments is increasingly used to create differences between monolinguals and bilinguals.

Standard	Regional	Asian	Non standard	a

Q: The concept of _____ proposed by Foucault (1991).

CAT	governmentality	Politics	Tax	b

Q: Foucault focuses on how language practices _____the ways in which language is used.

Manage	Makes	regulate	Modify	c

Q:The framework of _____ developed by Antonio Gramsci (1971).

Hegemony	Louis Pasteur	Michael Faraday	Archimedes	a

Q: Antonio Gramsci framework explains how people acquiesce to invisible _____power.

Ethnic	Unsocial	cultural	International	c

Q: Erikson defines _____as routine actions and unexamined beliefs that are consonant with the actions.

Linguistics practices	Hegemonicpractices	Language practices	Speaking practices	b

Q: Our routine language practices become _____mechanisms which unconsciously create categories of exclusion.

Develop	Build	regulatory	unrestrictive	c

Q: Language is a _____construction, linked to the construction of the nation-state.

Social	Skill	Personality	Introverted	a

Q: Despite the changes to our conception of nation-states is a result of_____.

Wars	globalization	Discrimination	Illegality	b

Q: Bilingual schools that act on their potential to be transformative must build on the children's complex _____.

Pidgin	Creole	Translanguaging	languaging	d

Q: Bilingual children tend to have more _____skills and divergent thinking than monolingual children.

Bilingualistcs	Linguistics	metalinguistics	Multilinguistics	c

Q: In many, perhaps most, settings in the world, it is normal and unmarked to _____in interactions between individuals who belong to the same bilingual culture.

Language	translanguage	Language switching	Metalinguistics	b

Q:Sometimes _____takes place across cultures.

native-like control	translanguaging	Bilingualism	Interactions	b

Q: Translanguaging, or engaging in bilingual or multilingual discourse practices, is an approach to _____that is centered.

Multilinglism	Monolingualism	bilingualism	Phonology	c

Q: Early scholars of bilingualism, in particular _____only considered native-like control of two languages as a sign of bilingualism.

Ferdinand	bloomfield	Roman Jakobson	Paul Grice	b

Q: Einar Haugen and UrielWeinreich, had much broader definitions of_____.

Phonetics	Phonology	Morphemes	Bilingualism	c

Q: Haugen considered even _____proficiency in two languages a sign of bilingualism.

Maximum	Almost	minimum	Least	c

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Q:Weinreich labeled someone who _____between the two languages as a bilingual.

Limited	alternated	Differentiate	substituted	b

Q: _____speaks of incipient bilingualism to designate those who are at the very beginnings of acquiring some competence in another language.

Diebold	Roman	Edward Sapir	Paul Grice	a

Q: _____bilingualism presents a picture of children and adults who are equally competent in two languages.

Unbalanced	Language	balanced	Standard	c

Q: The belief in balanced bilingualism holds that a bilingual is like two persons, each fluent in one of the_____ languages.

One	Two	Three	Four	b

Q: The languages of an individual are rarely _____equal, having different power and prestige.

Morally	socially	Personally	Equally	b

Q: _____are multiple discursive practices in which bilinguals engage in order to make sense of their bilingual worlds.

plurilingual	translanguaging	Semilingualism	Bilingual	b

Q: Translanguaging therefore goes beyond what has been termed _____.

Codeswitching	Code mixing	Translanguage	semilingualism	a

Q: _____families and communities must translanguage in order to construct meaning.

Semilingualism	bilinguals	heritage-language	plurilingual	b

Q: Translanguaging is thus the only _____practice that can include all family members.

		discursive		c

Q: Bilingual communities'translanguage extensively, sometimes using their languages for _____modalities.

Same	different	Equal	Lesser	b

Q: Bilingual practices are in no way _____they simply reflect greater choices, a wider range of expression.

sufficient	ample	deficient	Bounteous	c

Q: Fishman et alproposed the construct of _____.

Ranges	domains	deficient	Non deficient	b

Q: Domains allow scholars to make _____between, on the one hand, clusters of interaction and interlocutors, and on the other, more concrete social situations.

Disconnection	Gap	connections	Dissociation	c

Q: Grosjean (1997) refers to this language use of bilinguals as the _____ principle.

disconnection	complementarity	Atrocity	Segregation	b

Q: Cenoz and Genesee conclude that _____may not need the same levels of proficiency in all of their languages.

Bilinguals	Monolinguals	multilinguals	Semilingual	c

Q: The linguistic choices for bilinguals are also_____.

equal	greater	viewpoint	lesser	b

Q: Gumperz (1982) has shown how language use of bilinguals has much to do with the desire to be _____distinct.

generally	clearly	socially	not	c

Q: Scholars nowadays prefer the term _____to refer to language contact phenomena at all linguistic levels.

preference	disconnection	transference	translanguaging	c

Q: _____ is the process of going back and forth from one language to the other.

shifting	translanguaging	code mixing	Code-switching	d

Q: Code-switching may be of at least_____ types.

one	three	two	four	c

Q: The first type of Code-switching is _____.

intra-sentential	inter	co sentential	none	a

Q: _____refers to instances in which the switch occurs within the boundaries of a clause or a sentence.

translanguaging	sentential	intra-sentential	co sentential	c

Q: Code-switching is a sophisticated linguistic skill and a characteristic of the _____of fluent bilinguals.

utterance	speech	phrase	sentence	b

Q: Myers-Scotton has shown how _____in a code-switching environment is used to negotiate interpersonal relationships.

mode selection	Code-selection	code mixing	none	b

Q: Code mixing is usually accompanied by _____in the linguistic forms.

utterance	selection	extension	reduction	d

Q: Bilingualism is characterized by increasing _____of linguistic features of the first language.

intensity	profit	loss	level	c

Q: When a community engages in efforts to revitalize their language practices, this is called _____ bilingualism.

additive	recursive	negative		b

Q: The _____language continues to be used in traditional ceremonies and by many in the community to different degrees.

Mother	regional	ancestral	diglossic	c

Q: _____bilingualism draws attention to the fact that bilingualism is not simply linear.

Dynamic	additive	recursive	palinode	c

Q: _____ is helpful in that it enables us to shed concepts of balanced bilingualism.

bilingualism	Plurilingualism	multilingualism	monolingualism	b

Q: _____ (1991)suggests the concept of polyglot dialogue with everyone speaking their language, but understanding everyone else's.

Posner	Chomsky	Brones	John	a

Q: The concepts of_____, language dominance, and mother tongue emerge from a treatment of bilingualism.

Plurilingualism	semilingualism	bilingualism	monolingualism	b

Q: The obsession with _____as the norm of reference has led to the proposal of the concept of semilingualism.

semilinguals	bilinguals	monolinguals	Plurilinguals	c

Q: The development of _____has expanded our understandings of the languaging practices of bilinguals.

pragmatics	sociolinguistics	Phonetics	language study	b

Q: The language usually spoken in the individual's home in his early childhood although not necessarily used by him at present called _____.

regional	Father tongue	mothertongue	social	c

Q: Those who are learning a _____language should be considered emergent bilinguals.

Second	First	Third	mother	a

Q: The concept of a second-language speaker is _____.

perfect	fluent	same like 1st	problematic	d

Q: The term _____language is also often used to refer to languages spoken by ethnic communities.

Mother	heritage	regional	ethnic	b

Q: Productive bilingual abilities mean that bilinguals are capable of_____ signs in more than one language.

Speaking	writing	producing	all	d

Q: _____bilingual abilities mean that they may understand, read or attend to, or interpret, signs in more than one language.

additive	recursive	receptive	social	c

Q: There are _____circumstances that often produce receptive or passive bilinguals.

Four	five	six	seven	a

Q: Deaf children may not develop the ability to productively sign the standardized _____languages.

Written	spoken	heritage	sign	d

Q: Bilingualism can also be a consequence of language_____, that is, the use to which one puts either language.

production	function	role	importance	b

Q: The type of _____ bilingual is referred by Fishman.

Additive	receptive	recursive	elite	d

Q: An Eelective bilingual is referred by_____and Figueroa (1994).

Peer	Valdes	Chomsky	Maley	b

Q: Acquisition, according to _____ refers to “picking up” a language.

Hellmann	Valdes	Chomsky	Krashen (1981)	d

Q: The term _____a second language is used to indicate the study of the language as is done in school or other formal settings.

acquiring	learning	studying	preferring	b

Q: Simultaneous bilingualism has been referred to as the acquisition of bilingualism as a _____language”

2nd	Third	first	primary	c

Lesson-31

BILINGUALISM

Q: Starting to acquire a _____language in childhood is not in itself a sufficient condition for the development of full bilingualism.

Mother	regional	first	second	d

Q: The differences between early onset and late onset of bilingualism in school are negligible by the time students are in _____school.

primary	higher	secondary	public	c

Q: Children's communicative needs are also _____than those of adults.

complex	simpler	fluent	problamatic	b

Q: Language shift or maintenance does not happen in a vacuum, it occurs only when certain _____conditions are present.

social	societal			b

Q: Co-existence of more than one language called _____.

multilingualism	translanguaging	Trilingualism	bilingualism	d

Q: Differences in power, value, and _____ conferred on each of the two languages that lead the group to maintain or abandon the home language.

language	status	education	money	b

Q:Bilingual education programs for language minorities encourages mostly Spanish-speaking children to shift quickly to _____only.

English	Spanish	regional	Mother tongue	a

Q: RLS stands for_____.

Real Language Shifts	Rear Language Shifts	Reversing Language Skill	Reversing Language Shifts	d

Q: Nationalist ideologies throughout the world continue to link language to identity_____.

bi-directionally	indirectionally	multidirectionally	unidirectionally	d

Q: Language has much more than a_____ and symbolic function.

dialectic	semiotic	phonetic	spoken	b

Q: There is a _____role between language and identity.

Reciprocal	opposite	contrary	common	a

Q: Postcolonial identity involves not only _____but by extension otherness.

contrariness	sameness	oddness		b

Q: Language ideologies represent the_____ system of ideas about social and linguistic relationships.

social	regional	cultural	societal	c

Q: Attitudes, values, and beliefs about language are always_____.

societal	regional	cultural	ideological	d

Q: Bourdieu's concept of linguistic practices as _____capital.

Symbolic	semiotic	dialectic	Written	a

Q: The _____context can prevent individuals from accessing certain linguistic resources or adopting new identities.

societal	regional	cultural	social	d

Q: There are _____components of language policy.

six	seven	two	three	d

Q: _____ is also known as language planning, language intervention, language engineering, or language treatment.

Language arrangement	Language learning	Language management	Language teaching	c

Q: Language practices the _____pattern of selecting among varieties that make up its linguistic repertoire.

common	rear	occasionally	habitual	d

Q: Language beliefs and ideology interact with the _____levels.

one	two	three	four	b

Q: According to Cooper (1989), the LP enterprise can be carried out by _____different kinds of actors.

six	five	four	three	d

Q: Ager discusses _____goals of language policy:

six	seven	eight	nine	b

Q: Identity, as when states impose certain languages as a _____ to specific identities.

hindrance	passage	problem	link	d

Q: Kaplan and Baldauf (1997) outline _____different kinds of LP activities that schools must carry out.

four	five	six	seven	d

Q: Skutnabb-Kangas and Phillipson (1994) have identified_____ broad categories of Linguistic Human Rights.

four	three	two	seven	c

Q: Skutnabb-Kangas proposes that there are _____kinds of LHRs.

two	three	four	five	a

Q: _____linguistic human rights refer to the right not to be discriminated against on the basis of language.

positive	public	common	negative	d

Q: _____linguistic human rights refer to the maintenance and development of identity through the freedom to practice unique aspects of minority life.

positive	public	common	negative	a

Q:Bilingual _____ refers to the time allotments given to one language or the other in bilingual education.

learning	allocation	planning	teaching	b

Q:The most equitable distribution of languagesis, of course, a _____allocation.

50:50	10:10	20:20	100:100	a

Q:Most of the time, bilingual education programs have a _____bilingual allocation.

primary	realistic	null	sliding	d

Q: The child's home language is increasingly used until the two languages are equally divided in a_____ relationship.

50:50	10:10	20:20	100:100	a

Q:As the power of the languages_____, the other language may be allocated equal time in the curriculum.

rise	promote	equalize	decrease	c

Q: The_____ of bilingual allocation in bilingual education programs has to do with the resources available, including teachers and material, as well as societal goals.

sliding	variability	fixing	planning	b

Q: Even after languages have been allocated, educators must make decisions about how languages will be used or arranged in the _____.

home	society	curriculum	school	c

Q: The languages of a bilingual education curriculum can be arranged either by strictly separating them or by using the _____languages flexibly.

six	one	two	eight	c

Q: Flexible language arrangements can be of _____types.

three	two	seven	five	b

Q: Bilingual education programs following _____ bilingual frameworks usually follow this structure.

recursive	common	additive	negative	c

Q: Decisions as to how the languages are to be separated follow one of _____strategies.

three	four	seven	four	d

Q: In the United States it is quite common, as we have said, for teachers to write in _____for English and red for Spanish of multilingualism in general.

Blue	green	pink	black	a

Q: _____ has pointed out that teaching all subjects in the two languages.

Fishman	Polmenr	Rowder	Chomsky	a

Q: Teachers who are members of bilingual communities will use their two languages in classrooms in ways similar to those in which they use them in the_____.

every where	country	home	community	d

Q: _____ code-switching is often the way in which bilinguals teachers use language in transitional bilingual education classrooms.

Fixed	usual	primary	Random	d

Q: In the late 1980s, Rodolfo Jacobson attempted to develop a pedagogy that used _____as a pedagogical tool.

translanguaging	code mixing	code-switching	all	c

Q: Jacobson's approach taught teachers never to use _____ switches.

inter-sentential	intra-sentential	code	inter-code	b

Q: This bilingual arrangement requires that literacy be reserved only for the _____ language.

English	mother	dominant	First	c

Q: The conception of bilingualism as linear and solely as 1 + 1 = 2 rejects any bilingual languaging which violates traditional concepts of language as an_____ system.

dependent	autonomous	solo	pedagogic	b

Q: The _____-associations with code-switching in the classroom have been increasinglyquestioned by scholars.

positive	negative	natural	additive	b

Q: Responsible code switching means to control the _____and quality of switching between languages in the classroom so as to serve the objective of the lesson.

speed	quantity	fluency	grammar	b

Q: _____ means using both languages simultaneously.

code mixing	Co-languaging	co-mixing	Co-switching	b

Q: Garcíahas been found that the _____and metacognitive exercises offered in cross-linguistic work strengthen the students' languages.

Delta-inguistic	meta-linguistics	cross-linguistic	co languaging	b

Q: The teacher's intent is always to develop a language of _____or to make content in the majority language understood.

poor	power	region	country	b

Q: Schools that adopt multiple bilingual teaching have a clear language policy that includes not only the development of bilingual proficiency, but also the_____ practices.

transdiglossic	translanguaging	cross-linguistic	co languaging	b

Q: Teachers breakdown information in to small pieces and proceeds in a_____ fashion.

linear	non linear	symmetric	parallel	a

Q: In the _____method, translation is avoided, and teachers' model language patterns that students then repeat.

express	shortest	direct	hightest	c

Q: The grammatical approach was based on_____.

performance	behavior	lecture	action	b

Q: The communicative approach is derived from a constructivist _____framework.

academic	practical	national	theoretical	d

Q: _____methodology is also used throughout the world for revitalization of languages.

immersion	interest	teaching	transgression	a

Q: The cognitive approach _____the transfer of knowledge stored as schemata or production systems in one language to the learning of new tasks in a second language.

carry	with	support	bear	c

Lesson-44

Q: Social justice is the most important principle of _____education pedagogy.

mono lingual	multi lingual	diglossic	bilingual	d

Lesson-45

Q: Pakistan is a country with at least_____ major languages and 58 minor ones.

five	six	seven	eight	b

Q: The national language, Urdu, has over _____mother-tongue speakers.

11million	12 million	13 million	14 million	a

Q: _____ is indeed the most widely understood language.

pushto	english	Urdu	punjabi	c

Q: Language becomes deficiton what Bierre Bourdieu, the French sociologist, would call cultural _____.

social	capital	primary	neutral	b

Q: Urdu spreads through schooling, media and_____, pragmatic pressures make the other Pakistani languages retreat.

internet	books	primary	urbanization	d

Q: _____was supposed to continue as the official language of Pakistan till such time that the national language(s) replaced it.

English	Spanish	Punjabi	German	a

Q: Pakistani government has rationed out_____.

Urdu	Arabic	English	Punjabi	c

Q: Punjabi is a huge language and will survive despite _____shame and neglect. .

additional	culture	social	primary	b

Q: Sindhi, and Pashto are both_____ languages and their speakers are proud of them.

big	small	rich	least	a

Q: Over _____small languages of Pakistan mostly in Northern Pakistan, which are under tremendous pressure?

forty	fifty	sixty	seventy	b

Lesson-46

Q: Pakistan should not rest content with localization in _____alone.

Punjabi	English	sindhi	Urdu	d

Q: Localization in _____ is a step forward towards increasing the power base of the people.

Urdu	English	retinal	local	a

Q: _____factors outlined by David Crystal for the endangered languages.

six	seven	eight	five	a

Q: An endangered language will progress if its speakers can _____their language.

speek	understand	write	promote	c

Q:AIDS,family planning in their local language through the_____.

school	computer	class	friends	b

Q: Pakistan is a multilingual country, with _____of its population suffering from multi-dimensional poverty.

40%	49%	45%	47%	b

Q: The Economic Survey (2011) estimates the literacy rate at_____.

55%	57.7%	56.9%	58.6%	b

Q: Participation in higher education is only _____and is fraught with gender and regional disparities

1%	2%	3%	5%	d

Q: On Independence Day in_____, Urdu was declared the national language.

1946	1947	1948	1949	b

Q: Differences among individuals need to be accounted for and should not transform in to disadvantage in a_____context.

instructive	educational	traditional	local	b

Q: A _____ theory approach was adopted to generate categories from the interview data.

beached	grounded	based	high	b

Q: PSGs stand for_____.

primary school government	private school government	personal school graduate	Private school graduates	d

Q: The private school graduates in the study came from _____income groups.

lower	middle	elite	poor	b

Q: _____GSGs felt they had learnt Urdu.

55%	57%	62%	65%	c

Q: In private schools _____ was being used to explain concepts in classrooms.

English	punjabi	Urdu	regional	c

Q: Language based marginalization results from _____of the linguistic capital that individuals posses.

valourization	devalourization	preferring	valorization	b

Q: Those who possess the _____ linguistic capital they feel naturally superior to others.

most spoken	Mother	Valued	English	c

Part Two
Some Important Terms and Topics

Dialects
For linguists, the term "dialect" is a neutral term used for variants of a specific language. Romaine (1994) defines dialect as "a subordinate variety of a language," and refers to regional dialects, associated with a place, social dialects, associated with social class, and historical dialects referring to ancestors of present language varieties. There are also ethnic dialects spoken by ethnolinguistic groups.

Dialects and Varieties
Many lay people also assume that dialects are varieties of a language that are mutually intelligible, that is, speakers are able to understand each other. However, mutual intelligibility has little to do with language, and more to do with people, since it is people who understand each other. Many cases contradict the assumption that dialects are mutually intelligible whereas languages are not. For example Hindi and Urdu, though mutually intelligible are considered two languages.

Pidgins and Creoles
Pidgins are defined by linguists as languages that come into being in contact situations, and are used by speakers with different language backgrounds to communicate, typically to trade or in plantation contexts. For us, they are just another manifestation of how people language. Structurally speaking, pidgins are simplified; that is, they have little morphology and limited syntax, and they are not mutually intelligible with the language from which they derive their lexicon. Pidgins are always learned as second languages.
In contrast, when pidgins become nativized and standardized, and adopted as the language of the home by a majority of the population, they are known as creoles.
Creoles are said to be lexically and structurally complex, and are learned as first languages. Michel De Graff (1999) has argued against what he calls "creole exceptionalism," that is, the idea that because creoles had no time to incorporate the parent- languages' complex grammars, and because they are so new, creoles are similar to each other and different from other languages**.**

Standardization of Language
Standardization is not an inherent characteristic of language, but the result of a deliberate process. Standardization occurs by fixing and regulating such features as the spelling and the grammar of a language in dictionaries and grammar books which are then used for prescriptive teaching of the language. The term standard language is often used in opposition to standard is "vernacular:" the local language practices. *Coulmas (2005: 215) defines standard as "a prestigious variety of language, providing a written institutionalized norm as a reference form for such purposes as language teaching and the media." The* standard norm is decided and codified by a central group, disseminated through the institutions of the state such as education and then usage is constantly policed and users dissuaded from divergent practices, both formally and informally.

Standardization of Language and Literacy
Standardization and literacy are intrinsically linked, because, as Romaine has pointed out, "the acquisition of literacy presupposes the existence of a codified written standard, and standardization depends on the existence of a written form of language" (1994: 86).Since, literacy relies on the standard,

the standard language itself is taught explicitly in school, and it certainly needs to be taught. Without its acquisition, language minority children will continue to fail and will not have equal access to resources and opportunities. However, the exclusive use of a standard variety for school has important implications for bilingual education. Without a lot of caution, the school's insistence on using only the standard variety of the home language can be detrimental, and may even aggravate the linguistic insecurity that many minority speakers feel.

Imposition of Standard Language:
Powerful groups impose their language on the less powerful. In some countries, children are schooled in a language spoken only by a powerful minority within the country, and not by the majority of speakers. This educational practice privileges those who spoke the imposed language at home, severely curtailing educational opportunities for those who were schooled in a language they did not understand. This guarantees that the power stays in the hands of the Indigenous elite.

Linguicism
This racism that is associated with language is what ToveSkutnabb-Kangas (2000) has termed "linguicism."There are many examples worldwide of using language to limit educational and occupational opportunities to those who speak the privileged language. This actually accentuates social differences, since they can only be acquired through formal education and not everyone has access to school. Pennycook (2002) has also shown how language use in education may create "docile" people, able to cooperate in their own exploitation.

Balanced Bilingualism;
Balanced bilingualism presents a picture of children and adults who are equally competent in two languages in all contexts and with all interlocutors. Although this is still a widely accepted idea, especially among educators, it has long been recognized that such a form of bilingualism does not exist. The belief in balanced bilingualism holds that a bilingual is like two persons, each fluent in one of the two languages.

Translanguaging
Translanguaging, or engaging in bilingual or multilingual discourse practices, is an approach to bilingualism that is centered, not on languages as has been often the case, but on the practices of bilinguals that are readily observable. These worldwide translanguaging practices are seen here not as marked or unusual, but rather are taken for what they are, namely the normal mode of communication that, with some exceptions in some monolingual enclaves, characterizes communities throughout the world.
When describing the language practices of bilinguals from the perspective of the users themselves, and not simply describing bilingual language use or bilingual contact from the perspective of the language itself, the language practices of bilinguals are examples of what we are here calling translanguaging. We borrow this term from Cen Williams (cited in Baker, 2001) who used it to name a pedagogical practice which switches the language mode in bilingual classrooms, for example, reading is done in one language, and writing in another.
Translanguagings are multiple discursive practices in which bilinguals engage in order to make sense of their bilingual worlds. Translanguaging therefore goes beyond what has been termed code-switching, although it includes it, as well as other kinds of bilingual language use and bilingual contact. Translanguaging for us extends what Gutiérrez and her colleagues have called "hybrid language use," that is, a "systematic, strategic, affiliative, and sense-making process" (Gutiérrez, Baquedano-López, and Alvarez, 2001: 128).

Code-switching
Code switching is the process of going back and forth from one language to the other. Code-switching may be of at least two types. The first type, intra-sentential, refers to instances in which the switch occurs within the boundaries of a clause or a sentence or intra-sentential between two or more sentences. Far from

being a sign of inadequacy or sloppy language usage or lack of knowledge, it has been shown that code-switching is a sophisticated linguistic skill and a characteristic of the speech of fluent bilinguals.
For some, code-switching refers to the bilingual's ability to select the language in response to external cues and according to the properties of the linguistic system; code-mixing on the other hand, refers to combining elements from each language because the speaker does not know how to differentiate between them (Meisel, 1989). Code mixing is usually accompanied by reduction in the linguistic forms and the uses of that language as a result of a process of language attrition or loss.

Subtractive Bilingualism
When monoglossic ideologies persist, monolingualism and monolingual schools are the norm, it is generally believed that children who speak a language other than that of the state should be encouraged to abandon that language. In this model, the student speaks a first language and a second one is added while the first is subtracted. The result is a child speaks only the second language.This bilingualism is characterized by increasing loss of linguistic features of the first language. Additive bilingualism for prestigious groups and the elite has always been additive, a model under which the second language is added to the person's repertoire and the two languages are maintained. Despite the benefits of this approach, bilingualism here is still seen from the perspective of a monolingual norm.

Recursive Bilingualism
The concept is used in cases when bilingualism is developed after the language practices of a community have been suppressed. When a community engages in efforts to revitalize their language practices, this is called recursive bilingualism as, for example in the case of the Maori of Aotearoa/New Zealand, individuals are not starting from scratch and adding simply a second language.

Dynamic Bilingualism
Dynamic bilingualism draws attention to the fact that bilingualism is not simply linear but dynamic, drawing from the different contexts in which it develops and functions. In the linguistic complexity of the twenty-first century, bilingualism involves a much more dynamic cycle where language practices are multiple and ever adjusting to the multilingual multimodal terrain of the communicative act. With language interaction taking place on different planes including multimodalities, that is, different modes of language (visuals as well as print, sound as well as text, and so on) as well as multilingualism, it is possible for individuals to engage in multiple complex communicative acts that do not in any way respond to the linear models of bilingualism proposed above. For us, this model of dynamic bilingualism is closely related to plurilingualism.

Plurilingualism
Plurilingualism is helpful in that it enables us to shed concepts of balanced bilingualism, or the idea that children be equally competent in two languages in all contexts and with all interlocutors. It extends the mastery of two or more standard languages to include hybrid language practices. Thus the concept of plurilingualism confirms the idea that one plus one does not always equal two. Increasingly, the world seeks to develop bilingual citizens who function within the plurilingual dynamics of the twenty-first century. For example, Posner (1991) suggests the concept of polyglot dialogue with everyone speaking their language, but understanding everyone else's.

Semilingualism
The obsession with monolinguals as the norm of reference has led to the proposal of the concept of semilingualism, referring to the unequal performance of bilingual children in their two languages when compared to monolingual children (see Skutnabb-Kangas and Toukomaa, 1976). The development of sociolinguistics has expanded our understandings of the languaging practices of bilinguals; that is, their discursive practices, and how these in turn are affected by social and political constraints. This increased

understanding has led scholars to abandon the concept of semilingualism, no longer considering it a useful characterization.

Language Dominance

The dominant bilingual was defined as one for whom competence in one of the languages was superior to the competence in the other. Objecting to the use of speed tests to determine language dominance of bilinguals, Fishman et al. (1971) argued that where bilingualism is socially constructed, and not merely an occupation or hobby, the concept of language dominance as determined by speed tests is irrelevant. Bilinguals are much more than just two monolinguals, and often, as we will see, it is difficult to disentangle abilities and functioning in one language from that in the other.

Mother tongue

Another common concept now challenged is that of mother tongue. The United Nations defines mother tongue as "the language usually spoken in the individual's home in his early childhood, although not necessarily used by him at present." This directive states that member states should promote the teaching of the mother tongue and the culture of the country of origin in the education of migrant workers' children.

Kaplan and Baldauf (1997) argue "One may be a native speaker of a language even though one's mother was not [. . .]. It is not a useful term, but it is, nonetheless [. . .] widely used." In addition, Mother tongue tends to be used for language minorities and much less so for language majorities. The term therefore tends to be a symbol of separation of minority and majority, or those with less, as opposed to those with more power and status."

Bilingual Abilities

Depending on the reasons for using their languages, bilinguals may have only oracy abilities in one language or the other – the ability to listen and speak – and not literacy abilities – the ability to read and write either language or vice versa or they may have, as the Deaf do, signacy, that is, the ability to interpret and produce signs. Any one of these language abilities may be manifested in different combinations among bilingual individuals.

Productive bilingual abilities mean that bilinguals are capable of speaking, writing and producing signs in more than one language.

Receptive bilingual abilities mean that they may understand, read or attend to, or interpret, signs in more than one language, although they cannot speak, write, or produce signs in more than one language. There are four circumstances that often produce receptive or passive bilinguals:

1. Children of immigrant or minority backgrounds whose home languages are not promoted in the wider society are often able to understand their parents and elders, but are incapable of speaking the language themselves.
2. Deaf children who are born to hearing parents, and whose education excludes the use of sign language, may not develop the ability to productively sign the standardized sign languages.
3. Those who have learned a language in traditional language programs may understand, read, and interpret the language learned well, although they may be incapable of speaking, writing, or producing signs.
4. Bilingualism can also be a consequence of language function, that is, the use to which one puts either language. In fact, language ability and language function are often interrelated, since one has to have the possibility to function and use a specific language or two languages in order to develop ability to engage in language practices that use either or both of the languages.

Elective vs. obligatory bilingualism:

Some individuals choose to develop bilingual abilities, often the result of studying the language in school or through personal effort. That is, their bilingualism is optional. This type of bilingual has been referred to as "elite bilingual" by Fishman (1977b) and "elective bilingual" by Valdés and Figueroa

(1994). Other individuals are forced to develop bilingual abilities. That is, their bilingualism is obligatory. For example, immigrants, indigenous peoples, and minorities who are forced to learn and use only language practices that are not those of the home. Hence, they are obligatory bilinguals. Valdés and Figueroa (1994) call them "circumstantial bilinguals.

Children's bilingual development:

Another important concept is whether children become bilingual either simultaneously, acquiring the two languages more or less at the same time in the home,or sequentially, that is, acquiring the second language at a later stage and usually once they go to school. Simultaneous bilingualism has been referred to as the acquisition of "bilingualism as a first language" (Swain, 1972). In the twenty-first century, the concepts of sequential and simultaneous bilingualism seem to work less well, as some children go to school earlier and participate in complex multilingual encounters, in reality and virtual reality, with ease and frequency from an early age.

The "milestones" of bilingual development and their timing are the same as those for monolingual children. There is no evidence that the fact that children growing up with two languages have to process more variation in the input has an effect on the rate of acquisition: on the whole, bilingual and monolingual children reach the milestones of development within similar age ranges. There is no evidence that bilingual children differ from monolingual children except for the fact that they produce mixed utterances in addition to monolingual ones; that is, they translanguage from an early age and young bilingual children know usually by the second year of life how to make the choice of whether to use one language or the other, or a mix of the two.

Adults' Bilingual Development

Many adolescents who immigrate become bilingual through participation with their peers and through schooling. Adults also can develop bilingual fluency and biliteracy fluency, and reach high levels of competence when they study a second language in a well-designed educational program (Rivera and Huerta-Macías, 2008). The European Commission introduced Erasmus, an exchange program that encourages university students from different European countries to study for part of their degree in a different language in another country. This has now been extended to other parts of the globe under the name Erasmus-World. Tribal Colleges that are fully accredited and operated by American Indian tribes in the United States offer Native American language and culture courses.

Child vs. Adult Bilingualism

Many have proposed that there are advantages to the early introduction of a second language in school (Cenoz and Genesee, 1998: 28). This is based on the widespread belief that earlier is better for bilingualism yet, there seem to be no age-related differences in the process of language learning. Starting to acquire a second language in childhood is not in itself a sufficient condition for the development of full bilingualism. Genesee (2004: 555) summarizes the arguments saying: "Notwithstanding some compelling arguments" (e.g., Long, 1990; Scovel, 1988), empirical evidence in favor of a critical period for L2 acquisition has been equivocal, with some studies claiming evidence for the critical period and others evidence against it.

Language shift or maintenance

Fishman (1968) argues that "The study of language maintenance and language shift is concerned with the relationship between change (or stability) in language usage patterns on the one hand, and ongoing psychological, social or cultural processes, on the other hand, in populations that utilize more than one speech variety for intra-group or for inter-group purposes."

Language shift or maintenance does not happen in a vacuum, it occurs only when certain societal conditions are present:

1.Co-existence of more than one language – bilingualism;

2.Differences in power, value, and status conferred on each of the two languages that lead the group to maintain or abandon the home language;

3.Pressure in political, economic, or social forms from one of the two language groups.

The process of language shift among immigrant populations tends to take place over three generations in countries such as the United States or Australia. In situations of language shift, forms and uses are reduced (De Bot and Clyne, 1994) and eventually this leads to groups shifting their use of one language to another. In cases of minoritized languages, this may lead to language death.

Language and Identity

Nationalist ideologies throughout the world continue to link language to identity uni-directionally. Language, as constructed, is not only a simple identity marker, but is capable of generating imagined communities and of constructing particular loyalties (Anderson, 1983: 133). Language, then, has much more than a semiotic and symbolic function; it also has a rhetorical function, used to discursively construct identity and solidarity. There is a reciprocal role between language and identity; that is, language use influences the identity formation of the group, while at the same time, the identity of the group influences the patterns of attitudes and language uses. Individual and social identity are mediated by language with speakers creating speech acts as acts of projection in which "the individual creates for himself the patterns of his linguistic behaviour so as to resemble those of the group or groups with which from time to time he wishes to be identified, or so as to be unlike those from whom he wishes to be distinguished.

Language Ideologies

Language ideologies represent the cultural system of ideas about social and linguistic relationships, in addition to political and moral interests. Attitudes, values, and beliefs about language are always ideological, and are enmeshed in social systems of domination and subordination of groups, relating to ethnicity, class, and gender. One of the most popular ideologies is precisely that there is, or that there has to be, a link between language and identity, but it is important to recognize that this is a result of the homogenizing work of school in imposing a national standard. Blommaert (1999: 10) says that linguistic ideologies are produced and reproduced through what people say and do not say, and do and do not do, through language itself. The study of language ideologies focuses, then, on the sociohistorical, sociopolitical, and socioeconomic conditions that affect the production of social meanings in relationship to language and to discourses.

Three components of language policy (Spolsky, 2004):

1. Language management – also known as language planning, language intervention, language engineering, or language treatment, and referring to direct efforts to manipulate the language situation
2. Language practices – the habitual pattern of selecting among varieties that make up its linguistic repertoire; related to what Hymes (1967) calls ethnography of speaking
3. Language beliefs or ideology – the beliefs about language and language use

The interactive way in which language is planned (or unplanned) and dictated from the top down, and the ways in which it is interpreted, negotiated (or planned) from the bottom up makes it impossible to differentiate between one level and the other and language beliefs and ideology interact with the two levels.

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Three dimensions of the language policy (LP) enterprise:

Focused on the linguistic dimension, the three dimensions of the language policy (LP) enterprise are:

1. **Corpus planning**: Changing the form of the language itself through standardization (standardizing language forms), graphization (developing a writing system), modernization (coining new words and terms)
2. **Status planning**: Modifying the status and prestige of the language

3. **Acquisition planning**: Developing new users of the language.Acquisition planning is especially relevant to those of us interested in bilingual education because school is the most important agent in acquisition planning

Seven goals of language policy by Ager (2001):

1. Identity, as when states impose certain languages as a link to specific identities. For example, France has maintained that it is a perfect hexagon and that only French is tied to French identity, thus silencing, until very recently, the other languages of France – Basque, Breton, Catalan, Corsican, Flemish, German, and Occitan.
2. Ideology, as when states or groups impose different languages or standards as a result of an ideology. An example is the United States' recent federal law, No Child Left Behind, mandating students' annual progress reports that are based on written Standard English assessments (Menken, 2005, 2008).
3. Image creation, as when states try to ensure that a favorable view is taken of their history and language by projecting its language. It is well known, for example, that the British Council and the U.S. government have supported the greater use of English in international communication (Phillipson, 1992).
4. Insecurity, as when states or groups are wary of others and their languages.
5. Inequality, as when states or groups act on language in order to correct inequalities in society. This is the case, for example, of non-sexist language that came to be used especially during the 1970s and 1980s
6. Integration with a group. This was the case when, for example, in Wales, fol- lowing the Education Act of 1870, Welsh children were not only required to learn English in school, but prohibited from speaking Welsh.
7. Instrumental motives, as when groups or individuals acquire a second language because it will give them advantages, usually economic ones, in the market or in careers. This is the case especially of English throughout the world.

Kaplan and Baldauf (1997) outline 7 different kinds of LP activities that schools must carry out:

1. Determining which languages are to be taught within the curriculum
2. Defining the teacher-supply and identifying who would teach language
3. Determining what segment of the population will be exposed to language education
4. Determining the model and methodology that will be employed, the materials to be used, how and by whom the material will be prepared, and how it will be disseminated
5. Defining the assessment processes used for initial placement, in-course testing,and output summative testing
6. Defining the assessment processes for teacher performance and system performance
7. Determining how to support the activity fiscally and physically

Language as Right

. Critical theory was adopted to study the role of language in asymmetrical power relations between speakers. As such, language rights became an important field of study (Skutnabb-Kangas, 2000), with an individual's right to use and learn his or her home language becoming recognized as a basic human right.

Skutnabb-Kangas and Phillipson (1994) have identified two broad categories of Linguistic Human Rights:

1. Individual rights: The right of every person "to identify positively with their mother tongue, and to have that identification respected by others" (1994: 2). This includes an individual's right to learn and use their home language, including in education, as well as to learn one of the official languages in one's country of residence.

2. Community rights: "The right of minority groups to exist" (1994: 2). This includes the right to establish and maintain schools and other educational institutions, with control of curricula.

Kinds of LHRs: Skutnabb-Kangas (2000, 2006)

1. Expressive, or non-instrumental rights which ensure people's capacity to enjoy a secure linguistic environment in their home language and a group's fair chance of cultural self-reproduction.
2. Instrumental rights which ensure that language not be an obstacle to meaningful participation in the democratic process and public institutions, and to social and economic opportunities.

Positive and Negative linguistic human rights

Skutnabb-Kangas (2006) also proposes human rights can be negative or positive. Negative linguistic human rights refer to the right not to be discriminated against on the basis of language. Positive linguistic human rights refer to the maintenance and development of identity through the freedom to practice unique aspects of minority life.

Skutnabb-Kangas's (2000) model of Linguistic Human Rights for linguistic minorities

Skutnabb-Kangas's (2000) model of Linguistic Human Rights for linguistic minorities rests on three principles for proper integration:

- **Positive promotion-oriented rights:** Language minorities must both enjoy a secure linguistic environment in their home language, as well as be able to use that language to participate meaning-fully in a democracy.
- **Both territorial and personal rights:** Attention must be paid to the home language of individuals, as well as that of groups in defined geographical territories.
- **Both traditional "hard law" rights codified in covenants and conventions, and "soft law" rights:** Such as those in declarations and recommendations are necessary, as signed in the last twenty years to protect the linguistic rights of minoritized groups. For example, the UN Declaration on the Rights of Persons Belonging to National or Ethnic, Religious and Linguistic Minorities (1992).

Bilingual Allocation

Bilingual allocation refers to the time allotments given to one language or the other in bilingual education. Every school has to decide how many class periods will be dedicated to instruction through one language or the other. The most equitable distribution of languages (although not necessarily the most adequate) is, of course, a **50:50 allocation**, where half the subjects are taught in one language, and half in the other. The most extreme, but perhaps one of the most popular ones is a 90:10 distribution, with one language used 90 percent of the time, and the additional language used only 10 percent of the time.

Bilingual allocation, especially in multiple multilingual educational programs, is often even more complex, with languages being weaved in and out. For example, a bilingual education program in India might start out with a 90:10 allocation, with 90 percent of the time devoted to a tribal language, and 10 percent of the time to the regional language in the earliest primary grade but soon afterwards, the tribal language might be phased out, and English introduced. Although the regional language might be prevalent at first, English might eventually be used 90 to 100 percent of the time, especially in tertiary education.

Strict Separation

Bilingual education programs following additive bilingual frameworks usually follow this structure. This is usually what happens, for example, in prestigious bilingual education, immersion bilingual education, and maintenance bilingual education programs. Decisions as to how the languages are to be separated follow one of four strategies: time-determined separation; teacher-determined separation; place-determined separation; subject-determined separation.

1. **Time-determined**
   In this case, the school makes a decision as to when one language or the other is used. There are different alternatives as to how the languages are divided:
   - half- or part-day
   - alternate-day
   - alternate-week
2. **Teacher-determined**
   Here one teacher speaks only one language, and the second teacher solely speaks the other language. There are different manifestations of teacher-determined language-structuring:
   a. **Two Teachers, Two Classrooms**
      - This is the strictest of this teacher-determined separation. It combines teacher-determined with time determined separation. Here one teacher teaches in one language at some time of day, while at the same time another teacher teaches in the other language. At an alternate time, the two teachers switch children.

   b. **Two Teachers, One Classroom**
   Another arrangement is to have two teachers within one classroom who speak only one language to the students but are able to facilitate their learning in the other language because they themselves are bilingual. This is the usual arrangement when there are enough resources, especially in early childhood.
3. **Place-determined**
   This refers to situations where one particular classroom is used for instruction in one language, and a different classroom for instruction in the other. This is the structure used in many European classrooms and also in many Canadian immersion bilingual education programs. In each room, only one language is displayed and used by the teacher and the children. Most secondary schools also use this arrangement. In some classrooms, the left side is for one language, the right for the other. In others, different colors are used for the two languages. For example, in the United States it is quite common, as we have said, for teachers to write in blue for English and red for Spanish. of multilingualism in general.
4. **Subject-determined**
   This occurs when different subjects are taught through one or another language. Bilingual secondary schools most often use this arrangement – with some teachers teaching an academic subject in one language, and others teaching other subjects in the other language. Although some bilingual education programs teach all subjects in the two languages to all students, this may not be necessary.

Flexible Convergent
Flexible language use that drives towards convergence, that is, whose goal is to encourage language shift, is used in subtractive bilingual frameworks, and generally follows two patterns:

- Random code-switching
- Monoliterate bilingualism

Random Code-switching
It is well recognized that bilingual communities code-switch as a way to achieve their full range of expression. That is, just as monolingual communities style-switch from more formal to more informal registers, bilingual communities code-switch because they have at their disposal more than one code.

Monoliterate Bilingualism

This bilingual arrangement requires that literacy be reserved only for the dominant language. The local vernacular is never read or written; it is merely used to support understandings and instruction. An example of this monoliterate bilingual arrangement is the one used in Mali. Since 1994, Malian teachers have used what they call pédagogieconvergente (convergent pedagogy) in which there is convergence, or simultaneous use of both the children's mother tongues and French. During the first stages and until fifth grade, when French becomes the medium of instruction, the thirteen national languages, Bambara and Fulfulde being the most prevalent, are used to encourage dialogue and storytelling, with French only used in written expression (Traore, 2001).

Five Flexible Bilingual Arrangements Power

Five flexible multiple bilingual arrangements can develop the multiplicity of multilingual practices that are important today:

- Responsible code-switching both ways
- Preview/view/review
- Translanguaging
- Co-languaging
- Cross-linguistic work and awareness

Responsible Code-Switching

Responsible code switching means to carefully control the quantity and quality of switching between languages in the classroom so as to serve the objective of the lesson.Van der Walt, Mabule, and De Beer (2001) caution, however, that teachers must monitor both the quantity and the quality of their code-switching. In terms of quantity, the main part of classroom instruction needs to take place in the language being developed. As to quality, teachers should code-switch to offer meaningful instructional support and not merely to give orders, instructions, call attention, discipline, or follow the language input of the child. That is, code-switching cannot be simply random.

Translanguaging Flexibility and Advantages

Cen Williams sees four advantages to translanguaging which are deeper understanding of the subject matter, development of competence in the weaker language, home–school co-operation, and integration of fluent speakers with early-level learners (as discussed by Baker, 2001). Baker (2001) clarifies that translanguaging is not about code-switching, but rather about an arrangement that normalizes bilingualism without functional separation. What makes translanguaging different is that the assignment of one language to be input or output is systematically varied so that students get an opportunity to use both languages receptively (understanding and reading) and productively (reading and writing). Baker adds that this kind of deliberate and systematic concurrent use of two languages is especially useful at the secondary and tertiary level. In most bilingual curriculum, translanguaging is even more flexible than what Cen Williams describes.

Example: In an advanced biology class given to secondary school, the students use that text alongside one written in Spanish that offers complementary material on the same topic. The instructional dialogue between teacher and students takes place mostly in Spanish but because students have to write the Advanced Placement examination in English, students write in both languages. Spanish is used most of the time in writing but English essays, based on those first drafted in Spanish, are carefully prepared.

Example:In a fifth-grade dual-language classroom in the United States, the children learn social studies in Spanish and although the New York State test is offered in both English and Spanish, all, except for one of the students in this class, choose to answer the exam in English.

Co-languaging

Co-languaging means using both languages simultaneously. Use of technology also affects the ways in which curriculum is structured and instruction is delivered. For example, in Africa, a university's efforts

to integrate students and include non-Afrikaans-speaking students rest on delivering the curriculum in a bilingual mode in the power point, with Afrikaans and English co-present. Having both languages present on the screen, each in a different color, enables the inclusion of all students while reserving room for Afrikaans, the language traditionally used in the university.

Cross-Linguistic Work and Awareness

Many bilingual education programs blend language-separation arrangements with flexible convergence types. Although some subjects are taught through one or the other language, a part of the curriculum is reserved for bringing the two or more languages together for contrastive analysis. Here, vocabulary, structures, and discourse patterns are contrasted. At other times, there is an instructional space for bilingual children to do cross-linguistic work which allows them to translanguage, using both languages flexibly, in much the same way as experienced bilingual authors, and bilingual communities, often do. For example, much attention is paid to how bilingual literary authors use cross-linguistic strategies for different effects, as the students' abilities to reproduce these in writing are expanded. Other times, actual languaging of bilingual communities is critically examined, as children reflect on this cross-linguistic use and its purpose and effect.

Convergent Teaching

What characterizes convergent bilingual teaching is the use of the two languages concurrently in ways that subordinate one language to the other following a flexible convergent arrangement. The teacher's intent is always to develop a language of power or to make content in the majority language understood. Thus, when the minority language is used, its only purpose is to support instruction in the majority language.

Immersion

The belief here is that the two languages are best developed in isolation. What characterizes this model of bilingual teaching is the explicit carving out of a space for both languages so that each would function with the privilege of a majority language. Thus, all schools using this bilingual teaching have a clear and explicit language policy of teaching monolingually for bilingualism. This immersion bilingual teaching is often used when the minority language has to be protected because of the encroachment of the majority language, or in cases where one of the languages is being revitalized.

Multiple Bilingual Teaching

Schools that adopt multiple bilingual teaching have a clear language policy that includes not only the development of bilingual proficiency, but also the translanguaging practices and plurilingual values of multilingual awareness and linguistic tolerance. Thus, the two or more languages are always used in combination– neither concurrently nor separately, but in a blending of the two practices.

Grammatical Approach

The grammatical approach emphasizes the rules and structure of the language that is being acquired. Students are explicitly taught language rules and sentence structures and are engaged in much practice. In general, the grammatical approach relies on three distinct methodologies the grammar-translation method, the direct method, and the audio-lingual method.

Communicative Approach

Whereas the grammatical approach was based on behavior ,the communicative approach is derived from a constructivist theoretical frame work that suggests that language learning occurs as students draw meaning from experience and interpersonal interaction. The two most important language learning methods under the communicative approach are: immersion instruction and integrated content-based instruction(ICB).

Cognitive Approach

The cognitive approach emerged in the1980sas a view of learning based on the process of children's construction of meaning by using thinking and reasoning strategies. That is, learning is recognized to be as

much cognitive as it is social and interactive. The emphas is on this approach is on the learner's metacognitive processes, that is, the active control over the cognitive processes that are used in learning (Flavell, 1979). The cognitive approach also emphasizes the students' interactions with text and discourse structures present in the classroom. It distinguishes between three types of knowledge: declarative knowledge, what we know; procedural knowledge, what we know how to do; and conditional knowledge, the knowledge of when, why, or where to use information and skills.

Language Policy

Urdu: According to the constitution of Pakistan Urdu is the national language of the country and' arrangements shall be made for its being used for official and other purposes with in fifteen years' from 1973 when the constitution was made (Article251 of the Constitution of the Islamic Republic of Pakistan).Urdu is indeed the most widely understood language and the major medium of interaction in the urban areas of the country .Even ethnic activists agree that it could be a useful link language between different ethnic groups. However, it has been resisted.

Privileging of Urdu by the state has created ethnic opposition to it. However, as people learn languages for pragmatic reasons (Rahman,2002),they are giving less importance to their languages. This phenomenon ,sometimes called' voluntary shift', though it is not really' voluntary'(Nettle and Romaine2000).What happens is that market conditions are such that one's language becomes defection what Bierre Bourdieu, the French sociologist, would call cultural' capital'(Bourdieu,1991).Instead of being an asset it becomes a liability .It prevents one from rising in society. The use of Urdu as a symbol of national integration has also jeopardized additive multilingualism recommended by UNESCO(2003)and, of course, by many eminent linguists and educationists as Urdu spreads through schooling, media and urbanization pragmatic pressures make the other Pakistani languages retreat. In short, the consequence of privileging Urdu strengthens ethnicity while, at the same time and paradoxically, threatens linguistic and cultural diversity in the country.

Language Based Discrimination;

The study revealed language based discrimination was more in private schools than in government run schools. In private schools although Urdu was being used to explain concepts in classrooms, students were strongly discouraged to use any other language but English, even if it meant that some students could not participate meaningfully because they did not know the language. At times there were also punishments attached to speaking in Urdu. Here was the paradox of using but rejecting Urdu. The message was clear that the right to speak and to be heard was conditional to their speaking in English.In government run schools education was in Urdu, regional languages were tolerated and English language was almost never used. Here, although the local linguistic capital of the learners was accepted, the discrimination surfaced if a school had an English medium section starting from grade 6.

Higher Education and Languages

In higher education also those from Urdu medium felt as if they were silenced and disempowered if the subjects they were being taught were in English. While there was an option to choose some subjects in Urdu, the main texts leading to specific academic careers like medicine and engineering remained in English only. Hence, those excelling in their studies from government schools felt a change in their positioning among the peers. They did not only felt low self-esteem as they struggled with understanding the text, while watching those from the private schools sailing through it effortlessly but they also found it difficult to ask questions or participate in class. Hence, none except one girl, who belonged to a higher income bracket from the government school, was able to achie